Idiom

From Wikipedia, the free encyclopedia

For the realized structure particular to a language, see idiom (language structure). For other uses, see Idiom (disambiguation).

An **idiom** is a phrase or expression that fairly or exclusively carries a figurative or non-literal meaning, rather than making any literal sense. Categorized as formulaic language, an idiomatic expression's meaning is different from the literal meanings of each word inside it.[1]

Idioms occur frequently in all languages. In English alone there are an estimated twenty-five thousand idiomatic expressions.[2] Some well known idioms in English are "spill the beans" (meaning "reveal secret information"), "it's raining cats and dogs" (meaning "it's raining intensely"), and "break a leg" (meaning "good luck").

Derivations [edit]

Many idiomatic expressions were meant literally in their original use, but occasionally the abstraction of the literal meaning changed and the phrase itself grew away from its original roots—typically leading to a folk etymology. For instance, the phrase "spill the beans" (meaning to reveal a secret) is first attested in 1919, but has been said to originate from an ancient method of voting by depositing beans in jars, which could be spilled, prematurely revealing the results.[3]

Other idioms are deliberately figurative. For example, *break a leg* is an expression commonly said to wish a person good luck just prior to their giving a performance or presentation, which apparently wishes injury on them. However, the phrase likely comes from a loan translation from a phrase in German and Yiddish origin, which is why it makes no literal sense in English.

Compositionality [edit]



Love is blind—an idiom meaning a person who is in love can see no faults or imperfections in the person whom they love[4]

In linguistics, idioms are usually presumed to be figures of speech contradicting the principle of compositionality. That compositionality is the key factor for the analysis of idioms is emphasized in most accounts of idioms.[5][6] This principle states that the meaning of a whole should be constructed from the meanings of the parts that make up the whole. In other words, one should be able to use a position to understand the whole if one understands the meanings of each of the parts that make up the whole.

For example, if the phrase "*Fred kicked the bucket*" is understood compositionally, it means that Fred has literally kicked an actual, physical bucket. The idiomatic reading, however, is non-compositional: it means that Fred has died. Arriving at the idiomatic reading from the literal reading is unlikely for most speakers. What this means is that the idiomatic reading is, rather, stored as a single lexical item that is now largely independent of the literal reading.

In phraseology, idioms are defined as a sub-type of phraseme, the meaning of which is not the regular sum of the meanings of its component parts.[7] John Saeed defines an idiom as collocated words that become known as a unit only through conventional use and a fossilised term.[8] This collocation of words redefines each component word in the word group and becomes an *idiomatic expression*. Idioms usually do not translate well; in some cases, when an idiom is translated directly word-for-word into another language, either its meaning is changed or it is meaningless.

When two or three words are conventionally used together in a particular sequence, they form an irreversible binomial. For example, a person may be *left-high and-dry*, but never *left dry-and high*. Not all irreversible binomials are idioms; however *chips and dip* is irreversible, but its meaning is straightforwardly derived from its components.

Mobility [edit]

Idioms possess varying degrees of mobility. Whereas some idioms are used only in a routine form, others can undergo syntactic modifications such as passivization, raising constructions, and clefting, demonstrating separable constituencies within the idiom.[9] *Mobile idioms*, allowing such movement, maintain their idiomatic meaning where *fixed idioms* do not:

Mobile

I spilled the beans on our project. → *The beans were spilled on our project.* (valid)

Fixed

The old man kicked the bucket. → **The bucket was kicked by the old man.* (confusing)

Many fixed idioms lack *semantic composition*, meaning that the idiom contains the semantic role of a verb, but not of any object. This is true of *kick the bucket*, which means *die*. By contrast, the semantically composite idiom *spill the beans*, meaning *reveal a secret*, contains both a semantic verb and object, *reveal* and *secret*. Semantically composite idioms have a syntactic similarity between their surface and semantic forms.[9]

The types of movement allowed for certain idioms also relate to the degree to which the literal reading of the idiom has a connection to its idiomatic meaning. This is referred to as *motivation* or *transparency*. While most idioms that do not display semantic composition generally do not allow *wh*-adjectival modification, those that are also motivated allow lexical substitution.[10] For example, *of the wheels* and *grease the wheels* allow variation for nouns that elicit a certain meaning.[11] These types of changes can occur only when speakers can easily recognize a connection between what the idiom is meant to express and its literal meaning, thus an idiom like *kick the bucket* cannot occur as *kick the pot*.

From the perspective of dependency grammar, idioms are represented as a catena which cannot be interrupted by non-idiomatic content. Although syntactic modifications introduce disruptions to the idiomatic structure, this continuity is only required for idioms as lexical entries.[12]

Certain idioms, allowing unrestricted syntactic modification, can be said to be metaphors. Expressions such as *jump on the bandwagon*, *pull strings*, and *draw the line* all represent their meaning independently in their verbs and objects, making them compositional. In the idiom *jump on the bandwagon*, *jump on* involves joining something and a 'bandwagon' can refer to a collective cause, regardless of context.[6]

Translation [edit]

A word-by-word translation of an opaque idiom will most likely not convey the same meaning in other languages. The English idiom *kick the bucket* has a variety of equivalents in other languages, such as *kopnąć w kalendy* ("kick the calendar") in Polish, *casser sa pipe* ("to break one's pipe") in French[13] and *tirare le cuoia* ("pulling the leathers") in Italian.[14]

Some idioms are transparent.[15] Much of their meaning gets through if they are taken (or translated) literally. For example, *lay one's cards on the table* meaning to reveal previously unknown intentions or to reveal a secret. Transparency is a matter of degree; *spill the beans* (to let secret information become known) and *leave no stone unturned* (to do everything possible in order to achieve or find something) are not entirely literally interpretable but involve only a slight metaphorical broadening. Another category of idioms is a word having several meanings, sometimes simultaneously, sometimes one of the meanings correct of its usage. This is seen in the (mostly unreflected) English language in polysemes, the common use of the same word for an activity, for those engaged in it, for the product used, for the place or time of an activity, and sometimes for a verb.

Idioms tend to confuse those unfamiliar with them; students of a new language must learn its idiomatic expressions as vocabulary. Many natural language words have *idiomatic origins* but are assimilated and so lose their figurative senses. For example, in Portuguese, the expression *saber de coração* 'to know by heart', with the same meaning as in English, was shortened to 'saber de cor', and, later, to the verb *decorar*, meaning *memorize*.

In 2015, TED collected 40 examples of bizarre idioms that cannot be translated literally. They include the Swedish saying "to slide in on a shrimp sandwich", which refers those who did not have to work to get where they are.[16]

The origin of cross-language idioms is uncertain. One theory is that cross-language idioms are a language contact phenomenon, resulting from a word-for-word translation called a calque. Idioms can spread in this way but happen as a result of lingua franca usage in which speakers communicate using their own native language, which exposes them to speakers of other languages. Other theories suggest they come from a shared ancestor-language or that humans are naturally predisposed to develop certain metaphors. [*citation needed*]

Non-compositionality [edit]



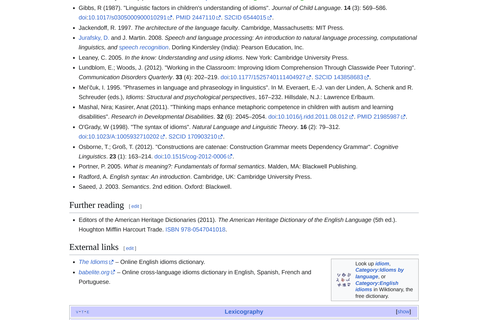
The **neutrality of this section is disputed.** Relevant discussion may be found on the talk page. Please do not remove this message until conditions to do so are met. *(October 2021) (Learn how and when to remove this message)*

The non-compositionality of meaning of idioms challenges theories of syntax. The fixed words of many idioms do not qualify as constituents in any normal way, for example:

How do we **get to the bottom** of this situation?

The fixed words of this idiom (in bold) do not form a constituent in any theory's analysis of syntactic structure because the object of the preposition (here this situation) is not part of the idiom (but rather it is an argument of the idiom). One can know that it is not part of the idiom because it is variable; for example, *How do we get to the bottom of this situation / the claim / the phenomenon / her statement / etc.* What this means is that theories of syntax that take the constituent to be the fundamental unit of syntactic analysis are challenged. The manner in which units of meaning are assigned to units of syntax remains unclear. The words problem has motivated a tremendous amount of discussion and debate in linguistics circles and it is a primary motivator behind the Construction Grammar framework.[19]

A relatively recent development in analysis of idioms departs from a constituent-based account of syntactic structure, preferring instead the catena-based account. The catena unit was introduced to linguistics by William O'Grady in 1998. Any word or any combination of words that are linked together by dependencies qualifies as a catena.[20] The words problem has motivated a tremendous amount of discussion and debate in linguistics circles and it is a primary motivator behind the dependency grammar trees of a few sentences containing non-constituent idioms:



The fixed words of the idiom (in orange) in each case are linked together by dependencies; they form a catena. The material that is outside of the idiom (in normal black script) is not part of the idiom. The following two trees illustrate proverbs:



The fixed words of the proverbs (in orange) again form a catena each time. The adjective *nitty-gritty* and the adverb *always* are not part of the respective proverb and their appearance does not interrupt the fixed words of the proverb. A caveat concerning the catena-based analysis of idioms concerns their status in the lexicon. Idioms are lexical items, which means they are stored as catenae in the lexicon. In the actual syntax, however, some idioms can be broken up by various functional constructions.

The catena-based analysis of idioms provides a basis for an understanding of meaning compositionality. The Principle of Compositionality can in fact be maintained. Units of meaning are being assigned to catenae, whereby any chance meanings that are not constituents.

Various studies have investigated methods to develop the ability to interpret idioms in children with various diagnoses including autism,[21] moderate learning difficulties,[22] developmental language disorder[23] and typically developing weak readers.[24]

See also [edit]

- Catena (linguistics)
- *Chengyu*
- Cliché
- Collocation
- Comprehension of idioms
- English-language idioms
- Figure of speech
- Metaphor
- Multiword expression
- Phrasal verb
- Principle of compositionality
- Rhetorical device

References [edit]

1. ^ The Oxford companion to the English language (1992:495).
2. ^ Jackendoff (1997).
3. ^ "The Maxims' Word of the Day: Spill the Beans". *Random House*. 23 February 2001. Archived from the original on 25 April 2011. Retrieved 28 July 2021.
4. ^ Elizabeth Knowles, ed. (2006). *The Oxford Dictionary of Phrase and Fable*. Oxford University Press. pp. 302–3. ISBN 9780191578564. "the saying is generally used to mean that a person is often unable to see faults in the one they love."
5. ^ Radford (2004:187).
6. ^ Portner (2005:139).
7. ^ Mel'čuk (1995:167–232).
8. ^ For Saeed's definition, see Saeed (2003:60).
9. ^ a b Nunberg, Geoffrey (2003). "Idioms, Metaphors, and Syntactic Mobility". *Journal of Linguistics*. **39** (2): 245–273. doi:10.1017/s0022226703002020.
10. ^ Keizer, Evelien (2018). "Idiomatic expressions in Functional Discourse Grammar". *Linguistics*. **54** (5): 981–1016. doi:10.1515/ling-2016-0022. S2CID 151574119.
11. ^ Mostafa, Mastoura (2019). "Variation in V+the+N idioms". *English Today*. **26** (4): 37–43. doi:10.1017/s0266078410000325. S2CID 145266570.
12. ^ O'Grady, William (1998). "The Syntax of Idioms". *Natural Language and Linguistic Theory*. **16** (2): 279–312. doi:10.1023/a:1005932710205. S2CID 170903210.
13. ^ "Translation of the idiom kick the bucket in French". www.idiomsaday.com. Archived from the original on 2022-05-19. Retrieved 2018-01-06.
14. ^ "Translation of the idiom kick the bucket in Italian". www.idiomsaday.com. Archived from the original on 2018-01-07. Retrieved 2018-01-06.
15. ^ Gibbs, R. W. (1987)
16. ^ "40 brilliant idioms that simply can't be translated literally". *TED Blog*. 20 January 2015. Archived from the original on 2016-04-09. Retrieved 2016-04-08.
17. ^ BOGUSHEVSKAYA, V. (2016). Guányǔjù 惯用语 (Idioms and Common Sayings). In R. Sybesma (ed.), Encyclopedia of Chinese Language and Linguistics Online. Brill. https://doi.org/10.1163/2210-7363_ecll_COM_000301 https://www.academia.edu/30792442/Guányǔjù_惯用语_Idioms_and_Common_Sayings
18. ^ "ĐỊNH MỨC CÁ SỐ". scov.gov.vn (in Vietnamese). 2011-11-16. Retrieved 2024-07-10.
19. ^ Culicover and Jackendoff (2005:328.)
20. ^ Osborne and Groß (2012:173ff.)
21. ^ Mashal and Kasirer, 2011
22. ^ Ezell and Goldstein, 1992
23. ^ Benjamin, Ebbels and Newton, 2020
24. ^ Lundblom and Woods, 2012

Bibliography [edit]

- Benjamin, L.; Ebbels, S.; Newton, C. (2020). "Investigating the effectiveness of idiom intervention for 9-16 year olds with developmental language disorder". *International Journal of Language and Communication Disorders*. **55** (2): 266–286. doi:10.1111/1460-6984.12519. PMID 31867833.
- Crystal, *A dictionary of linguistics and phonetics*, 4th edition. Oxford, UK: Blackwell Publishers.
- Culicover, P. and R. Jackendoff. 2005. *Simpler syntax*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Ezell, H.; Goldstein, H. (1992). "Teaching Idiom Comprehension To Children with Mental Retardation". *Journal of Applied Behavior Analysis*. **25** (1): 181–191. doi:10.1901/jaba.1992.25-181. PMC 1279665. PMID 1582965.
- Gibbs, R. (1987). "Linguistic factors in children's understanding of idioms". *Journal of Child Language*. **14** (3): 569–586. doi:10.1017/s0305000900010291. PMID 2447110. S2CID 6544015.
- Jackendoff, R. 1997. *The architecture of the language faculty*. Cambridge, Massachusetts: MIT Press.
- Jurafsky, D. and J. Martin. 2008. *Speech and language processing: An introduction to natural language processing, computational linguistics, and speech recognition*. Dorling Kindersley (India): Pearson Education, Inc.
- Leaney, C. 2005. *In the know: Understanding and using idioms*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Lundblom, E.; Woods, J. (2012). "Working in the Classroom: Improving Idiom Comprehension Through Classwide Peer Tutoring". *Communication Disorders Quarterly*. **33** (4): 202–219. doi:10.1177/1525740111404927. S2CID 143858683.
- Mel'čuk, I. 1995. "Phrasemes in language and phraseology in linguistics". In M. Everaert, E.-J. van der Linden, A. Schenk and R. Schreuder (eds.), *Idioms: Structural and psychological perspectives*, 167–232. Hillsdale, N.J.: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Mashal, Nira; Kasirer, Anat (2011). "Thinking maps enhance metaphoric competence in children with autism and learning disabilities". *Research in Developmental Disabilities*. **32** (6): 2045–2054. doi:10.1016/j.ridd.2011.08.012. PMID 21985987.
- O'Grady, W (1998). "The syntax of idioms". *Natural Language and Linguistic Theory*. **16** (2): 279–312. doi:10.1023/a:1005932710205. S2CID 170903210.
- Osborne, T., Groß, T. (2012). "Constructions are catenae: Construction Grammar meets Dependency Grammar". *Cognitive Linguistics*. **23** (1): 163–214. doi:10.1515/cog-2012-0006.
- Portner, P. 2005. *What is meaning?: Fundamentals of formal semantics*. Malden, MA: Blackwell Publishing.
- Radford, A. *English syntax: An introduction*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Saeed, J. 2003. *Semantics*. 2nd edition. Oxford: Blackwell.

Further reading [edit]

- Editors of the American Heritage Dictionaries (2011). *The American Heritage Dictionary of the English Language* (5th ed.). Houghton Mifflin Harcourt. ISBN 978-0547041018.

External links [edit]

- *The Idioms* – Online English idioms dictionary.
- *babelite.org* – Online cross-language idioms dictionary in English, Spanish, French and Portuguese.

Look up idiom, Category:Idioms by language, or Category:English idioms in Wiktionary, the free dictionary.

Lexicography [show]
Authority control databases [show]
Categories: Idioms | Lexical units | English grammar

This page was last edited on 16 June 2025, at 14:01 (UTC).
Text is available under the Creative Commons Attribution-ShareAlike 4.0 License; additional terms may apply. By using this site, you agree to the Terms of Use and Privacy Policy. Wikipedia® is a registered trademark of the Wikimedia Foundation, Inc., a non-profit organization.
Privacy policy About Wikipedia Disclaimers Contact Wikipedia Code of Conduct Developers Statistics Cookie statement Mobile view